

So we can write overall optimization problem as follows

The objective function now optimizes two conflicting objectives: Maximization of the margin and minimization of the margin violations

$$\begin{aligned} \min_{\mathbf{w}, b} \quad & \frac{1}{2} \mathbf{w}^T \mathbf{w} + C \sum_{i=1}^N \zeta_i \\ \text{s.t.} \quad & y_i (\mathbf{w}^T \mathbf{x}^{(i)} + b) \geq 1 - \zeta_i \\ & \zeta_i \geq 0 \end{aligned}$$

Or

$$\begin{aligned} \min_{\mathbf{w}, b} \quad & \frac{1}{2} \mathbf{w}^T \mathbf{w} + C \sum_{i=1}^N \zeta_i \\ \text{s.t.} \quad & 1 - \zeta_i - y_i (\mathbf{w}^T \mathbf{x}^{(i)} + b) \leq 0 \\ & -\zeta_i \leq 0 \end{aligned}$$

Weight of the penalty due to margin violation

C is the weight of the penalty of the term representing margin violation.

If C is small, then more margin violations will occur.

If C is large, lesser margin violations will occur.

C can be found out through cross-validation

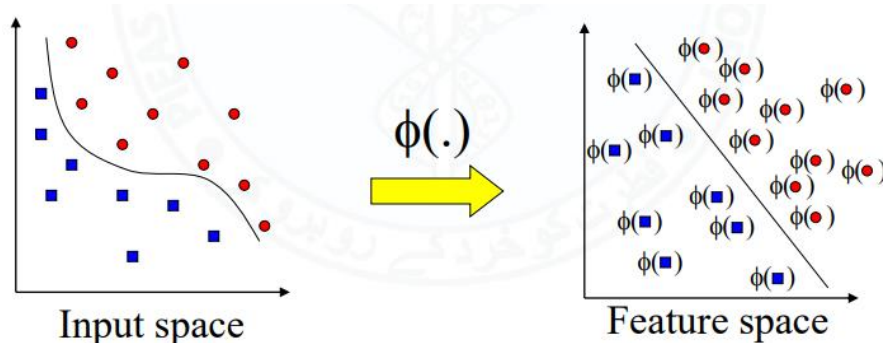
Types of SVM

SVM can be of two types:

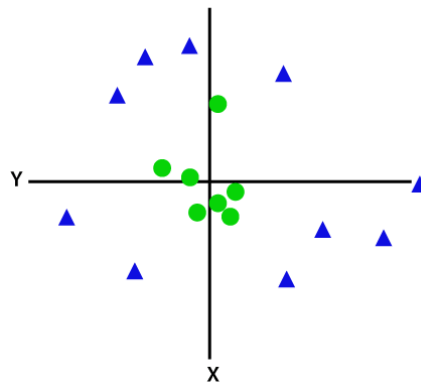
- **Linear SVM:** Linear SVM is used for linearly separable data, which means if a dataset can be classified into two classes by using a single straight line, then such data is termed as linearly separable data, and classifier is used called as Linear SVM classifier.
- **Non-linear SVM:** Non-Linear SVM is used for non-linearly separated data, which means if a dataset cannot be classified by using a straight line, then such data is termed as non-linear data and classifier used is called as Non-linear SVM classifier.

Nonlinear data separation through Transformation

Given a classification problem with a nonlinear boundary, we can, at times, find a mapping or transformation of the feature space which makes the classification problem linear separable in the transformed space.



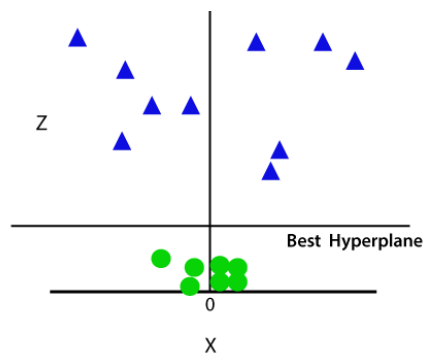
If data is linearly arranged, then we can separate it by using a straight line, but for non-linear data, we cannot draw a single straight line. Consider the below image:



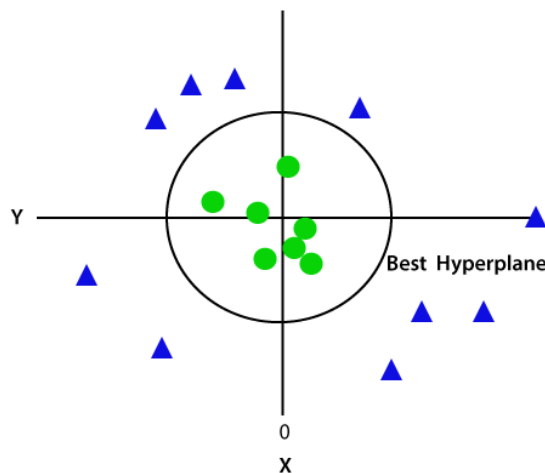
So to separate these data points, we need to add one more dimension. For linear data, we have used two dimensions x and y, so for non-linear data, we will add a third dimension z. It can be calculated as:

$$z = x^2 + y^2$$

By adding the third dimension, the sample space will become as below image:



Since we are in 3-d Space, hence it is looking like a plane parallel to the x-axis. If we convert it in 2d space with $z=1$, then it will become as:



Hence we get a circumference of radius 1 in case of non-linear data.

Examples of transformation**Example 1:**

$$\phi\left(\begin{bmatrix} x_1 \\ x_2 \end{bmatrix}\right) = \begin{bmatrix} x_1 \\ x_2 \\ x_1 x_2 \end{bmatrix}$$

Example 2:

$$\phi\left(\begin{bmatrix} x_1 \\ x_2 \end{bmatrix}\right) = \begin{bmatrix} (x_1)^2 \\ (x_2)^2 \\ \sqrt{2x_1 x_2} \end{bmatrix}$$

Example 3:

$$\phi\left(\begin{bmatrix} x_1 \\ x_2 \end{bmatrix}\right) = \begin{bmatrix} (x_1)^3 \\ (x_2)^3 \\ \sqrt{3}(x_1)^2 x_2 \\ \sqrt{3}(x_2)^2 x_1 \end{bmatrix}$$

Kernel Function:

Transformations can be used to make the data linearly separable. But it may not always be possible to find a transformation in this case we can use soft SVM.

The process of this feature transformation is called **Kernel Function**.

$$\begin{aligned} \max_{\alpha_i, \beta_i \geq 0} & \left\{ \sum_{i=1}^N \alpha_i - \frac{1}{2} \sum_{i=1}^N \sum_{j=1}^N \alpha_i \alpha_j y_i y_j \mathbf{x}^{(i)T} \mathbf{x}^{(j)} \right\} \\ \text{s.t.} \quad & 0 \leq \alpha_i \leq C, \quad \sum_{i=1}^N \alpha_i y_i = 0 \end{aligned}$$

In above equation we can replace $\mathbf{x}^{(i)T} \mathbf{x}^{(j)}$ with inner product of transformed features $\phi(\mathbf{x}^{(i)})^T \phi(\mathbf{x}^{(j)})$.

$$\begin{aligned} \max_{\alpha_i, \beta_i \geq 0} & \left\{ \sum_{i=1}^N \alpha_i - \frac{1}{2} \sum_{i=1}^N \sum_{j=1}^N \alpha_i \alpha_j y_i y_j k(i, j) \right\} \\ \text{s.t.} \quad & 0 \leq \alpha_i \leq C, \quad \sum_{i=1}^N \alpha_i y_i = 0 \end{aligned}$$

Since $\langle \mathbf{x}^{(i)}, \mathbf{x}^{(j)} \rangle$ is always a scalar, we can actually use a function called Kernel function $k(i, j)$ to map the two examples to a scalar value.

So kernel is a measure of how similar the two examples are whether they belong to the same class or not.

Some important kernel functions are given below.

- We can use arbitrary kernels, for example ...
 - The dot-product kernel
 - $K(\mathbf{a}, \mathbf{b}) = \mathbf{a}^T \mathbf{b}$
 - Feature transform: $\Phi(\mathbf{a}) = \mathbf{a}$
 - The homogenous polynomial kernels
 - $K(\mathbf{a}, \mathbf{b}) = (\mathbf{a}^T \mathbf{b})^p$, p is called degree
 - For $p = 2$ and 2D data, $\mathbf{a} = \begin{bmatrix} a_1 \\ a_2 \end{bmatrix}$: $\Phi(\mathbf{a}) = \begin{bmatrix} a_1^2 \\ a_2^2 \\ \sqrt{2}a_1a_2 \end{bmatrix}$
 - The Radial Basis Function (RBF) Kernel
 - $K(\mathbf{a}, \mathbf{b}) = e^{-\frac{\|\mathbf{a}-\mathbf{b}\|^2}{2\sigma^2}}$, σ controls the spread of the Gaussian
 - Feature transform?
 - The RBF and Homogenous Polynomial kernels implement non-linear boundaries
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